

Solar radiation primarily drives snow ablation during the March 2026 heat wave in the California Sierra Nevada

William Rudisill¹, Alan Rhoades¹, Megan Mason², Gabriel Lewis², Andrew
Schwartz², Marianne Cowherd⁴, Benjamin Hatchett³, Erica Siirila-Woodburn¹,
Dan Feldman¹

¹Lawrence Berkeley National Laboratory, Earth and Environmental Sciences Area

²UC Berkeley Central Sierra Snow Laboratory

³Colorado State University

⁴Montana State University

Key Points:

- March 2026 in the central California Sierra Nevada was the warmest ever observed, exceeding previous record set during the 1934 Dust Bowl.
- Net-shortwave radiation was the dominant driver of record rates of snow ablation in both forested and open sites.
- Surface layer stability and vapor pressure explain the small amount of sublimation (less than 1% of total ablation) during the heat wave.
- Forest snow is more directly temperature sensitive and ablated at a lower rate than the open.

Corresponding author: William Rudisill, williamrudisill@lbl.gov

Abstract

It is generally accepted that solar radiation is the most important snow-ablation forcing, but this poses a paradox: why are “snow-eater heat waves” so effective at ablating snow? Using the 3-sigma heat wave of March 2026 observed at the Central Sierra Snow Laboratory in the California Sierra Nevada (2100 m.a.s.l) as a case study, we ask the following questions: What are the energy balance mechanisms influencing ablation during the heat wave? Does vegetation canopy enhance or suppress rates of ablation? How much snow melts versus sublimates? We find the record snow ablation rates remain dominated by solar radiation and snow-albedo decline. In addition to being extremely warm, March 2026 was also the sunniest in the CERES satellite record ($42 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ above average). Canopy increases longwave radiation absorbed by sub-canopy snow, but solar shading and reduced turbulent exchange yields lower ablation rates under canopy (-18 mm/day) compared to the open site (-25 mm/day). Despite anomalously low snowpack cold content prior to the heat wave, sensitivity tests show a minimal influence of the starting internal thermodynamic state of the snowpack on the rate of snow ablation. Sublimation (less than 1% of total snow ablation in the open) was a relatively minor factor during the heat wave. Surface layer stability and vapor pressure gradient limitations explain the limited role of evapo-sublimation during the heat wave. Synoptic-scale analyses of snow–heat wave interactions should focus on the covariance of heat wave conditions, snow-albedo darkening, and atmospheric thermodynamic conditions that lead to prolonged cloud-free conditions.

1 Introduction

While meltwater from seasonal snowpacks has historically provided $\sim 70\%$ of runoff in the western US (WUS) (Li et al., 2017), these natural reservoirs and our ability to accurately measure, monitor, and predict them are in decline (Hale et al., 2023; Cowherd et al., 2024). From a practical perspective, many operational snowmelt runoff models use a temperature index approach, whereby air temperature (T_{air}) is the primary predictor of melt and accumulation (Anderson, 1973). While these models have proven effective, especially for large basins and when well-calibrated (Reis et al., 2025), the physical justification for such models is not clear. Since at least the 1980s, the field of snow hydrology has appreciated that understanding the climatic behavior of snow necessitates considering the entire energy budget of the snowpack. In particular, it is well accepted that the net shortwave radiation absorbed by the snowpack (SW_{net}) provides the majority of the energy available for melt during typical conditions (Marks & Dozier, 1992; Cline, 1997). Both small impurities (Deems et al., 2013; Skiles et al., 2018) and wet and dry grain-growth mechanisms (Colbeck, 1982) tend to decrease the amount of reflected sunlight (the snow albedo, α) and are responsible, in conjunction with rising sun-angles, for the large increases in springtime SW_{net} into mid-latitude snowpacks. Unlike downwelling longwave ($LW^{\downarrow}$; $4\text{--}100 \mu\text{m}$), the downwelling component of shortwave ($SW^{\downarrow}$; $0.3\text{--}3 \mu\text{m}$) is mainly insensitive to variations in T_{air} itself. Variations in $SW^{\downarrow}$ in time (and across elevation) are driven primarily by Rayleigh scattering by O_2 and N_2 , Mie scattering by naturally occurring and human-made aerosols, dust, and cloud droplets, as well as absorption primarily by water vapor, CO_2 , and O_3 .

At the same time, recent work has highlighted the strong correlation between extreme snow ablation (the loss of snow to either sublimation or melt) events and so-called “snow-eater heat waves” (SEHW) — prolonged periods of sustained, anomalous, and above-freezing T_{air} during the snow season (Rhoades et al., 2026). The characteristics of snow-eater heat waves have already appreciably changed since the 1850s, and these events are occurring more frequently, at a higher intensity, over a larger portion of the WUS, and earlier in the water year.

An example of such an early-season, high-intensity, SEHW occurred in March of 2026, when the monthly March T_{air} across the WUS was $3\text{-}\sigma$ above long-term averages. This event (which started earlier than the window of occurrence studied in Rhoades et al. (2026)) resulted in widespread and rapid ablation at many snow-observing sites (Marshall et al., 2026), and streamflow that was one-to-two months earlier than average in many watersheds (e.g., Fig. S1). This ablation raises an apparent paradox: if $SW^{\downarrow}$ provides most of the energy for snowmelt, and yet it is largely insensitive to T_{air} , then why are heat waves so efficient at ablating snow?

Using the March 2026 event as a case study, we ask the following questions:

- What are the dominant snow ablation energy forcings during spring heat waves, and how do they scale with increasing T_{air} ?
- How do vegetation canopies and atmospheric conditions — including clouds or lack thereof — shape such energetic forcings during heat wave events and the rate of snow ablation?
- What are the relative contributions of sublimation and melt to extreme snow ablation during such events?

Approximately one-third of North America’s snow water volume resides in forests (Kim et al., 2021). Previous work shows the dominant influence of forest canopy on snow ablation rate arises from the balance between solar shading and longwave emission from trees, which tend to have a higher emissivity than the clear-sky atmosphere (Sicart et al., 2004), and for this reason sub-canopy snow dynamics are sensitive to latitude (insofar as it controls $SW^{\downarrow}$) and mean winter T_{air} (insofar as it is related to $LW^{\downarrow}$) (Lundquist et al., 2013). Several studies have considered the effects of vegetation on the mean-state of the snow climate in the Sierra Nevada (Harpold et al., 2020; Krogh et al., 2020; Piske et al., 2025) which tend to show that, like other regions of the WUS mountains, forest reduces snow duration relative to adjacent open areas (Lundquist et al., 2013). However, in terms of rate of melt, forests may enhance melt rate (relative to open areas) during the mid-winter when the sun is weak (Bales et al., 2011), while reducing melt rates during the spring (Kittredge, 1953). Therefore, it is not clear whether the ablation rate of sub-canopy snow should increase or decrease relative to open areas during spring SEHW conditions.

Despite otherwise drier-than-normal conditions, high-altitude cirrus clouds can occur during high-pressure ridging events commonly associated with cool-season heat waves (Rhoades et al. (2026) Figure 1 and Supplemental Figure S5). Dry, sinking air associated with high-pressure ridges may also preclude the formation of low or mid-level clouds, which have the largest impact on the snow energy balance (Rudisill et al., 2025) and are generally associated with reduced rates of snow ablation and streamflow (Sumargo & Cayan, 2018). Frameworks for investigating interactions between clouds and surface radiation are well explored in the literature, using satellite retrievals and surface radiation data (Ramanathan et al., 1989; Shupe & Intrieri, 2004; L’Ecuyer et al., 2019), but little work has investigated the extent to which clouds, or the lack thereof (e.g., McEvoy and Hatchett (2023)), contribute to anomalous snow ablation in mid-latitude regions.

The outcomes from this study answer basic science questions about energy available for snowmelt or sublimation in water-resource-critical basins in the Sierra Nevada, with implications for other regions. The findings can directly inform efforts towards management and resilience against extreme events by providing actionable steps towards improving the monitoring and prediction of snowmelt and provide considerations for forest management efforts (Harpold et al., 2020). Lastly, improved understanding of vegetation and snow interactions during heat waves can inform headwater management practices through improved decision support tools (e.g., Heggli et al. (2026)).

2 Background and Methods

2.1 Study area

Our study is focused on observations collected at the Central Sierra Snow Laboratory (CSSL; 39.32 °N, 120.37 °W, 2100 m.a.s.l.) located in Soda Springs, CA (Schwartz et al., 2026) in the central California Sierra Nevada (Fig. 1a–e). In order to contextualize the regional-scale characteristics of the March 2026 snow drought and associated mechanisms, we also evaluate snow and T_{air} anomalies across the surrounding South Yuba, North Fork American, and Truckee River Watersheds. The Yuba and North Fork American rivers support the New Bullards Bar and Folsom reservoirs, respectively, both of which are managed for flood risk reduction and longer-term storage. All three watersheds support varied downstream consumptive uses (i.e., urban, industrial and agricultural) and provide critical aquatic and riparian habitats.

2.2 Observational data

2.2.1 Snow and near-surface data

We use data from twelve Natural Resources Conservation Service (NRCS) SNOw-pack TELelemetry (SNOTEL) Network stations located throughout the study region (Fig. 1b) spanning 1905 to 2605 m.a.s.l. SNOTEL is the primary snow observing program in the WUS (Serreze et al., 1999) and routinely measures snow water equivalent (SWE), precipitation, and T_{air} , though the homogeneity of T_{air} measurements remains a challenge for the SNOTEL network (Oyler et al., 2015; McAfee et al., 2019). To supplement SNOTEL temperature records, we use data from four US Historical Climatology Network (USHCN) stations and the gridded nClimGrid dataset (Durre et al., 2022) throughout the study region. USHCN stations are a high-quality subset of the larger GHCN-D dataset (Menne et al., 2012). The HCNv2 dataset provides homogenized and quality-assured monthly T_{air} based on USHCN data that dates as far back as the late 1800s (Menne et al., 2009). While these data do not have the same spatial density and elevation range as SNOTEL, the longer temporal record and high quality control mean that these observations can more confidently be used for evaluation of climate extremes, such as heat wave events (Bercos-Hickey et al., 2022).

In addition to hosting an NRCS SNOTEL site, CSSL provides long-term meteorological and snowpack records as well as surface energy balance measurements. Campbell Scientific CNR4 four-component radiometers measure incoming ($\downarrow$) and outgoing ($\uparrow$) SW and LW radiation from the atmosphere and snowpack. A Campbell Scientific IRGASON eddy covariance system measures sensible (H_s) and latent (H_l) heat fluxes above the snowpack. The CSSL forest study site hosts an additional meteorological station approximately 130 m north of the main CSSL site. This tower hosts an additional Kipp and Zonen SP Lite2 radiometer that measures below-canopy SW radiation. SWE measurements were obtained using a federal sampler (Osterhuber, 2014) for fourteen days spaced between January and early April of 2026.

To rank or contextualize SWE anomalies, we use the framework from Hatchett et al. (2022), which uses a percentile-based metric to assign snow drought categories. Drought categories are ranked as abnormally dry (D0), moderate drought (D1), severe drought (D2), extreme drought (D3), and exceptional drought (D4) for values between the 30th–20th, 20th–10th, 10th–5th, and 5th–2nd percentiles, and below the 2nd percentile, respectively. SWE percentiles are computed using the NRCS SNOTEL periods of record for each site. Z-scores are used to rank near-surface T_{air} and snow ablation anomalies. Baseline mean and standard deviations are computed using a common 30-year 1981–2010 normal period following NOAA standards, unless otherwise stated. Other deviations from normal conditions are expressed as the “anomaly,” which is the difference between the current state and the sample mean.

2.2.2 Atmospheric data

To investigate the atmospheric dynamics associated with the March heat wave, we examine 500 hPa geopotential heights from the fifth-generation ECMWF Reanalysis (ERA5) (Hersbach et al., 2020). Daily geopotential height anomalies during the event are computed using data provided by Lee et al. (2023). Heights have been de-trended and cover the period from 1979 to 2022.

We use the Clouds and the Earth’s Radiant Energy System (CERES) Energy Balanced and Filled (EBAF), hereafter CERES-EBAF (Kato et al., 2018), to investigate the effects of clouds, or lack thereof, on downwelling radiation at the land surface. CERES-EBAF provides gold-standard measurements of monthly surface and top-of-atmosphere (TOA) irradiances at a $1^\circ \times 1^\circ$ resolution. This product is suitable for trend analysis. While coarse in resolution, the lower-level hourly products have demonstrated good performance when evaluated against in-situ radiometers in mountains collected by intensive field campaigns (Rudisill et al., 2025; Feldman et al., 2023) and when used directly as forcings for snow simulations (Hinkelman et al., 2015). The 2000–present period-of-record of CERES-EBAF is used to examine the March anomaly in $SW^\downarrow$ and $LW^\downarrow$ and the contribution of clouds to the anomalies therein. CERES-EBAF provides all-sky and clear-sky estimates of downwelling surface radiative fluxes which are used to estimate cloud radiative effect (RE_{cloud} ; described in a subsequent section).

2.3 SUMMA model configuration

2.3.1 Model details

Neglecting precipitation related terms, the energy budget of a snowpack is given by:

$$\text{Melt/Refreeze} - \Delta CC = \underbrace{H_s + H_l}_{\text{turbulent fluxes}} + \underbrace{LW^\downarrow - \sigma \epsilon T_{snow}^4}_{\text{net longwave}} + \underbrace{SW^\downarrow(1 - \alpha)}_{\text{net shortwave}} + G, \quad (1)$$

where the left-hand side represents changes in the internal state of the snowpack and the right-hand side represents fluxes at the top/bottom of the snow control volume. Melt/Refreeze is the rate of melt or liquid water refreezing in mass per second multiplied by the latent heat of fusion, ΔCC is the time rate-of-change in the snowpack cold content (CC; Jennings et al. (2018)), H_s and H_l are the turbulent fluxes of sensible and latent heat respectively at the snow/atmosphere interface, T_{snow} is the temperature of the snow surface, ϵ is the emissivity of the snow (0.98), $SW^\downarrow$ is the downwelling shortwave radiation, and α is the albedo of the snow surface defined as the ratio of upwelling to downwelling shortwave radiation ($SW^\uparrow$ to $SW^\downarrow$). CC is signed such that it is by definition always equal to (in the case of isothermal, 0°C snow) or less than zero. Sign conventions are such that positive terms represent energy directed into the snowpack or snow melting, and negative the opposite (refreezing).

We use the process-based Structure for Unifying Multiple Modeling Alternatives (SUMMA) v3.3.0 model (M. P. Clark et al., 2015) configured at a point scale to solve Eq. 1 for open and forested conditions. SUMMA is well-vetted for a range of snow climate applications and provides several options for flux stability corrections, canopy radiation transfer, snow-layering schemes, and other model structural options (Cristea et al., 2022). We use the Jordan snow layering option, which allows for up to 100 snow layers, the “Louisinv” option for stability correction of turbulent fluxes, and the “stickySnow” canopy snow interception scheme. We assign a measurement height of 12 m for the model forcings into SUMMA in order to intercompare the effects of 10 m tall needleleaf vegetation characteristic of the forest site at CSSL using the same forcing variables. Snow albedo (α) is computed with SUMMA’s “varDecay” parameterization, in which visible and near-infrared albedos are prognostic and evolve as a balance between refreshment by snowfall and decay by grain growth, which is accelerated exponentially as the top snow

layer temperature rises, and further accelerated by a “slush” term near the melting point, plus a constant rate impurity loading.

Vegetation canopy influences the snow energy balance in SUMMA through several mechanisms. We use the “UEB-2stream” approximation for canopy radiative transfer. An LAI value of 1.5 was assigned based on data from nearby representative regions (Krogh et al., 2020). These choices are further validated by comparing modeled sub-canopy $SW^\downarrow$ for a range of LAI values against the CSSL radiometers in the forest site, and finding good agreement (Fig. S5). The incident $LW^\downarrow$ to the sub-canopy snowpack is modeled as the sum of $LW^\downarrow$ unobscured by the vegetation, weighted by $(1-\varepsilon_c)$, plus a component emitted by the canopy, weighted by the canopy emissivity ε_c . SUMMA solves for a vegetation energy balance and canopy air-space temperature which is used in the LW emission calculation. In SUMMA, ε_c is purely a function of the leaf-area index (LAI) and stem-area index. We turn off vegetation phenology in the model such that ε_c is constant for these experiments.

2.3.2 Model forcings

We use hourly ERA5 data (Hersbach et al., 2020) as SUMMA model forcings after bias correcting the data to observations at CSSL. Daily precipitation from the NRCS SNOTEL site is used directly as forcing when available (assuming a constant hourly precipitation rate within each day) in place of the ERA5 precipitation rate, which is known to underestimate snowfall in mountain regions. Hourly ERA5 two-meter T_{air} are bias corrected to match the monthly average T_{air} observed at the CSSL from the NRCS records by removing a constant linear bias term. ERA5 $SW^\downarrow$ data are adjusted to match the CNR4 data by applying a multiplicative $SW^\downarrow$ correction coefficient as a function of the solar zenith and azimuth angles to adjust the ERA5 data to account for shadows (see Fig. S3). To ensure that the ERA5 data matches the best available estimates of variability and trends in radiation at this site, we use a multiplicative scale that forces the ERA5 $SW^\downarrow$ and $LW^\downarrow$ monthly anomalies to match monthly anomalies in the CERES-EBAF data. Other forcing variables compared favorably against the available observations and were not adjusted. Additional information about SUMMA validation is provided in the Supplemental Material (Sec. S2.3).

2.3.3 Model evaluation and sensitivity testing

To aid in the interpretation of changes in the snow energy balance, we apply the radiative forcing concept in several ways in this study (Ramanathan et al., 1989; Deems et al., 2013; Rudisill et al., 2025). In this context, radiative forcing quantifies the instantaneous difference in the net, or in a single stream, of radiation between observed conditions and a counterfactual reference state (Table 1).

We define RF_{canopy} as the difference between R_{net} under the canopy and R_{net} outside of the canopy layer. Lacking observations sufficient to constrain RF_{canopy} , we use the SUMMA model to evaluate this quantity and express this value for both LW and SW components. To investigate the contribution of snow α decay to the surface radiation balance, we quantify RF_{albedo} , which is the difference between SW_{net} computed using modelled α versus SW_{net} computed using a hypothetical fresh-snow broadband α . For this work we use 0.85, which is slightly lower than that used in similar work (e.g., Gibson et al. (2026)).

We define a cloud radiative “effect”, rather than “forcing”, to express the influence of clouds on downwelling $LW^\downarrow$ and $SW^\downarrow$ terms only (RE_{cloud}), since a full accounting of cloud radiative effects on net-energy terms also depends on the amount of reflected and absorbed energy by the surface, and therefore the snow α , as well as assumptions about $LW^\uparrow$ emission (Rudisill et al., 2025)

All radiative effects are signed such that positive indicates energy is added to the snowpack via that process (clouds, canopy, or α decay), and a negative sign indicates the opposite.

Table 1. Definitions of radiative effect (the difference in downwelling terms only) and forcing (the difference in net-radiation) used in this study. All effects are signed positive when energy is added to the snowpack. x refers to the radiative component, which is either SW, LW, or the sum of SW and LW.

Name	Abbreviation	Equation
Cloud Radiative Effect	RE_{cloud}	$F_{x, \text{cloudy}} \downarrow - F_{x, \text{clear}} \downarrow$
Canopy Radiative Forcing	RF_{canopy}	$F_{x, \text{under-canopy}} - F_{x, \text{open}}$
Albedo Radiative Forcing	RF_{albedo}	$SW \downarrow [(1-\alpha_{obs}) - (1-\alpha_{clean})]$

In addition to running SUMMA for historical conditions, we also run sensitivity tests to isolate the effects of individual forcings and initial conditions on snow ablation during March 2026. The specifics of these experiments are described in subsequent sections. Additional specific modeling parameterizations with relevance to this study are described in the Supplemental Material (Sec. S2.1).

3 Results

3.1 The March 2026 SEHW

A four-station composite of the long-term and homogenized monthly USHCN HCNv2 data shows that 2026 had the highest March T_{air} observed since 1910, and was over 5 °C above the 1981–2010 average — greater than 3- σ above the mean (Fig. 2a). The previous record for March average T_{air} was set during the 1934 Dust-bowl (Cook et al., 2014) for each of the four stations in the composite. The nClimGrid likewise shows a +5–8 °C anomaly above average across the domain (Fig. 2b). This prolonged period of heat resulted from an extreme and persistent ridge of high pressure that gained strength throughout March (Fig. 3a), with 500 hPa geopotential height anomalies exceeding 2- σ (200 m) in many circumstances, including the 16 and 20 March. The hemispheric wave pattern on these days are characteristic of an amplified North American Dipole pattern (Wang et al., 2014, 2015; Singh et al., 2016).

The region experienced three notable periods of weather immediately prior to the March 2026 heat wave (Fig. 3b,c). While the water-year-to-date precipitation (1 October–28 February) was nearly 100% of normal leading up to March 2026 (not shown), there was a prolonged mid-winter dry spell (Hatchett et al., 2023) from 7 January to 9 February during which SWE began ablating (Fig. 3c). Then, between 14–19 February, a total of 100 mm of new SWE accumulated at CSSL. This snowfall event was followed by anomalously warm T_{air} and a rain-on-snow (ROS) event on the 24–25 of February that brought 91 mm of rainfall (not shown), leading to a net decline in SWE (Fig. 3b,c).

March began with average to slightly above average T_{air} . As the high-pressure ridge grew over the WUS, daily maximum T_{air} peaked at 20°C on 20 March at CSSL but remained well above normal from 8–31 March, with daily T_{air} values at the Tahoe City USHCN station yielding anomalies of 2- σ or greater for four days between the 17th–27th. SEHW conditions meeting the Rhoades et al. (2026) criteria were met for over a two-week period between 11 and 26 March. SEHW conditions were also met in the latter few days of February following the ROS event.

Snow began ablating consistently starting with the February ROS event for both the open and forest sites and continued into the month of March. We find good agreement between both SUMMA and observed SWE (Fig. 3c) and rates of ablation. SWE ablated at an average rate of -9.4 mm/day (-8.2 mm/day) between 1–14 March, after which it accelerated to a rate of -24.9 mm/day (-17.7 mm/day) until the end of the month in the open (forest), ablating completely in the open by the 28th and in the forest site by the 25th. Modeling results also show that, starting on 1 March, the snow contained significant liquid water throughout the depth of the pack on the order of 1–2% by volume due to the antecedent ROS event. A small snowfall event occurred on 1–2 March, and another occurred at the end of the month, on the 31st.

3.2 SWE anomalies during water year 2026

SWE ablated completely earlier, and at a faster rate than is typical for March, at SNOTELs throughout the study region (Fig. 4a–c). The beginning of March saw SWE at “None”, D0, or D1 drought levels across the twelve SNOTEL sites (Fig. 4d). While SWE was nearly 0 mm for two of the lower-elevation sites (station ID numbers 473 and 809), this was not particularly anomalous for those locations on this date. By the end of March, 9 of the 12 stations reached 0 mm SWE and the remaining sites were in a D3 (“extreme drought”) drought classification (Fig. 4e). Only 4 of the SNOTEL sites had a precedent for 0 mm of SWE on 31 March. Similarly, the snow-covered area reached its lowest ever recorded value on 31 March during the Moderate Resolution Imaging Spectroradiometer (MODIS) record (see Supplemental Material; Fig. S2). These findings are consistent with the observation that, WUS-wide, 17% of SNOTELs had the lowest mid-March SWE on record (Marshall et al., 2026).

An important distinction, however, is that the rate of monthly snow ablation (Δ SWE) was also anomalous at most sites (Fig. 4f). Typically, most SNOTEL sites in this region gain (or remain constant) rather than lose SWE throughout March (Fig. 4f) with the exception of the two lowest elevation sites. Nine out of 12 sites, including CSSL, measured their highest rate of monthly SWE ablation for the SNOTEL record. Two of the lowest elevation sites (473, 809) did not have anomalous Δ SWE in part because the starting value was so close to zero (Fig. 4d).

3.3 The snow energy balance in the open and forest site

Having examined the geographic and climatic context of March 2026 snow ablation (Sec. 3.2) we can begin to investigate the causes of anomalous ablation, which are fundamentally governed by the energy balance of the snow (Eq. 1). To do so, we now focus on the CSSL site (site ID 428 in Fig. 4 and also depicted in Fig. 3c). We examine time series of energy balance components (Eq. 1) by separating them into nighttime, daytime, and 24-hour averages (Fig. 5a–f, Fig. 6a–f).

H_s and H_l are relatively minor factors compared to radiative fluxes (Fig. 5a,b, Fig. 6a,b). A period of significant sublimation occurred (negative H_l) from 5–7 March, which corresponds with relatively high wind speed (Fig. 3c) but prior to the onset of the March SEHW conditions. Another significant sublimation event took place on 24 March. The highest rates of H_s occurred between 3–10 March and again between 21–26 March. A daytime average H_s exceeding $60 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ took place on 23 March for both the forest and open sites, three days after the peak of March T_{air} . Wind speeds are fairly low during the majority of March (peaking at $7 \text{ m}\cdot\text{s}^{-1}$ during mid-March) explaining some of the limited role of H_s and

SW_{net} , however, far exceeds H_s in the open site (Fig. 5c, Fig. 6c), and exceeds $240 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ by the end of the month (with 24 hr averages of approximately $120 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$). Rates

are significantly lower in the forest. SW_{net} increases throughout March, but never exceeds $80 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ in the forest site, though this is still greater than H_s in most cases.

In the forest, LW_{net} is positive on average for the entire month except the period spanning 4–7 March, which also corresponds with the only period of significant overnight CC production (Fig. 5d, Fig. 6d). Overnight LW_{net} switches from slight negative ($\approx -8 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) to positive or near-zero by 16 March in the forest site. The highest rate of LW_{net} occurs on 22 March, two days after the T_{air} peak of the heat wave event, and exceeds $60 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ during the daytime.

LW_{net} has the opposite sign in the open site, meaning the snow is continuously losing heat via LW emission, even during the peak of the heat wave in the latter half of March, and on the order of -80 to $-40 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ (Fig. 5d).

The preceding energy exchanges, in addition to ground heat flux (not shown), cumulatively manifest as energy directed towards breaking/reforming ice crystalline bonds (Melt/Refreeze) and warming ice to the melting point (ΔCC). A significant amount of energy is added back to the snowpack during the nighttime by liquid water refreezing (-6 to $-33 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) in the open site, and to a lesser extent in the forest site (Fig. 5e, Fig. 6e). The overnight LW_{net} cooling in the open yields overnight ΔCC that is eroded the following day, prior to the initiation of melt (yielding net-zero averages over a 24 hour period; Fig. 5f). The cumulative overnight production in CC becomes small compared to the following day's melt by mid-March and represents less than 20% of the total melt energy, indicating that the lack of overnight CC production — almost purely driven by the decline in LW_{net} and increase in overnight H_s — yields a snowpack that is primed for ablation the following day in the open site.

The dynamics of ΔCC are different in the forest — there is a near-zero amount of overnight CC production and very little refreezing. These model results are confirmed by morning field reports from CSSL observers, who found melt-refreeze crusts in the open during March but slush in the forest site.

3.4 Radiative forcing by canopy and albedo decline

The radiative forcing concept (Sec. 2.3.3) can be used to further interpret daily variation in the energy fluxes described previously, and shed light on the differences between the open and forest site energy balance mechanisms (Fig. 7a–f).

Both $\text{RF}_{\text{albedo}}$ and $\text{RF}_{\text{canopy}}$ have a demonstrable impact on the energy balance. The broadband snow α started at a relatively low value leading up to the March heat wave (0.6 to 0.7) and declines consistently following a small refresh from the snowfall event on the first of the month (Fig. 7a, Fig. 3c). The declines are well-matched by remote sensing and CSSL observations (Fig. S7).

$\text{RF}_{\text{albedo}}$ increases at the open site as a function of rising sun-angle, $SW^\downarrow$ (not shown), and α decline, reaching a value approaching $92 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ in the open site based on the SUMMA simulation. While there is only a minor difference in the SUMMA model snow α between the forest and open sites, $\text{RF}_{\text{albedo}}$ in the open exceeds $\text{RF}_{\text{albedo}}$ in the forest site by more than a factor of four by the end of the heat wave due to attenuation of $SW^\downarrow$ by the canopy layer (Fig. 7b).

Second in terms of magnitude to $\text{RF}_{\text{albedo}}$, the net $\text{RF}_{\text{canopy}}$ yields a $+30$ to $-30 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ maximum daily rate during the month (Fig. 7c). There are two competing effects that govern the net effect of canopy on the snow energy balance. $\text{RF}_{\text{canopy},\text{LW}}$ increases as a function of T_{air} at a rate of $3.3 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ per $^\circ\text{C}$ of (daily-average) T_{air} , which is visualized by considering the daily relationship for the entire SUMMA output record for the month of March (Fig. 7d). Additional analysis (not shown) indicates that the canopy temperature is consistently warmer than the ambient T_{air} during the daytime, which,

combined with the canopy emissivity relationship described in Sec. 2.3, explains this effect. However, $RF_{canopy,LW}$ does not perfectly mirror T_{air} during March, which likely results from the energy balance of the canopy layer and also variations in atmospheric $LW^\downarrow$ emission. This effect exceeds the shading effect of the canopy ($RF_{canopy,SW}$) during the beginning of the month, but the net-effect transitions to negative (cooling the snow) during the hottest part of the heat wave when the sun is also the most intense and the α is at its lowest.

Ultimately, the cumulative energy transmitted from the atmosphere to the snow attributed to RF_{albedo} is +152 and +32 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ for the open and forest sites respectively, and RF_{canopy} is responsible for a -5.4 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ effect (reducing energy incident on the snowpack). RE_{cloud} is evaluated in Sec. 3.6.

3.5 Climatological context of the March 2026 snow energy balance

How does the March 2026 energy balance compare to typical Marches at CSSL? As we have seen previously, SWE typically accumulates rather than ablates (Fig. 4f) during the month of March. We caution that this is not equivalent to saying that Melt does not occur, since snow may retain liquid water up to its residual saturation prior to the initiation of outflow. We compute cumulative sums, in $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$, of the different energy balance terms to quantify their total contributions to ablation (Fig. 8a–f and Table 2); for reference, 1 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ of energy is equivalent to approximately 3.0 mm of snowmelt or 0.35 mm of snow sublimation. Sums are computed only for times when snow is present on the ground during March 2026 (28 days in the open and 25 days in the forest). The same time periods are used for the historical period for fair comparison.

SW_{net} is both the strongest forcing (+229.3 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) and also the most anomalous forcing compared to the 2000–present March average (+120.3 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$), followed by H_s (+39.7 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$, with a +17 anomaly) in the open site (Fig. 8a, Table 2). For the forest site, SW_{net} is also the strongest forcing (+52.1 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) but not the most anomalous. The most anomalous forcing in the forest is LW_{net} , which is the second strongest forcing (+28.1 $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$). For a typical year, LW_{net} is below zero (and a source of snow cooling) rather than a source of energy for heating snow under canopy.

The weighted-average snow $\bar{\alpha}$ during March (computed as the monthly sum of $SW^\uparrow$ over the monthly sum of $SW^\downarrow$) is more than 1- σ below the historical mean at both the open and forest sites Fig. 8c,f.

The cumulative terms of panels Fig. 8a,d sum to the total Melt, with the small exception of the initial snow CC (which is by definition zero when there is no snow) and the small amount of heat added by precipitation, which is not depicted in the figure. The initial CC is small compared to the accumulated energy during the snow ablation period, and is near-zero $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ for the open site. The conversion of ice to liquid water via melting, combined with mass loss via sublimation, is equivalent to the total ΔSWE during the event (in addition to the drainage of the initial liquid content of the snowpack). Only 3.9 mm cumulatively sublimated from the sub-canopy snow of the forest site compared with 0.2 mm from the open site — which are less than 1% of ΔSWE in the open and 1.4% of ΔSWE in the forest site. At both sites this is less than the model-estimated sublimation for typical March conditions — roughly one-tenth of the climatological value in the open and about 60% of it in the forest (Table 2).

Separating out the daytime and nighttime energy anomalies sheds some light on the mechanisms responsible for anomalous ablation (Fig. 9a,b and Table 3). For convenience these factors can be separated into forcings at the snow boundaries (the sum of radiative and turbulent fluxes) and internal changes in snow energy (ΔCC and Melt/Refreeze).

We see that the anomalous ablation is primarily driven by daytime heating processes rather than (the lack of) nighttime cooling. The daytime energy forcing anomaly is more than twice the average for both open and forest sites. On the other hand, the nighttime cooling rate is actually stronger in the open site compared to historical conditions by 22%. This effect is partially explained by the Planck response of $LW^\uparrow$ from the surface — snow emits LW radiation at a rate proportional to the fourth power of its near-surface temperature (Eq. 1). Nighttime cooling is weaker in the forest, however, compared to historical conditions (-9.2 versus -21.9 MJ·m⁻²). The accumulated nighttime CC production is less than historical conditions for both sites (-11.9 versus -19.5 MJ·m⁻² in the open).

3.6 Cloud and radiation anomalies during March 2026

The above- and below-canopy $SW^\downarrow$ and $LW^\downarrow$ are also particularly anomalous during March 2026 (Fig. 8b,e). To understand these anomalies, we examine map-views and timeseries of the CERES-EBAF product for the WUS and the Sierra Nevada subset region (Fig. 10a-d). March 2026 had the highest $SW^\downarrow$ in the entire 27-year CERES record and is more than 1.5- σ above average for the subset region. 42 W·m⁻² of additional $SW^\downarrow$ energy irradiated the land surface compared to average conditions. While less anomalous in terms of z-score, the $LW^\downarrow$ anomaly is still 9 W·m⁻² above average and the seventh-highest rate of monthly $LW^\downarrow$ during the CERES-EBAF record for this region (Fig. 10c,d).

The variations in the $SW^\downarrow$ anomaly are almost entirely driven by variations in RE_{cloud} (which itself depends on cloud amount and optical properties). The same is not true for $LW^\downarrow$, which also depends on other factors including water vapor and column T_{air} . RE_{cloud} values were the highest (i.e., the weakest rate of cooling) recorded by CERES-EBAF, and correspondingly the RE_{cloud} LW effect was also the lowest on record, which together indicate that skies were anomalously free of optically thick clouds during this period. In other words, clouds typically provide about a -67 W·m⁻² adjustment of $SW^\downarrow$ relative to clear skies in March, but only provided a -26 W·m⁻² adjustment during March of 2026. Correspondingly, nearly zero precipitation was observed during the entire month (Fig. 3c). With this in mind, it is even more remarkable that $LW^\downarrow$ was above average for this region despite a clear atmosphere, which is indicative of the vastly warmer-than-typical atmospheric column.

In terms of energy, the anomalous increase in $SW^\downarrow$ due to the lack of optically thick clouds is equivalent to 93 MJ·m⁻² integrated over the duration of snow cover in the open during March 2026. Assuming 60% of that energy is reflected and the rest is converted to melting, this radiative forcing is equivalent to 37 MJ·m⁻², or 110 mm of melt assuming that all of this energy is converted to melt (as opposed to sublimation or other terms of the energy balance). The monthly cadence of the CERES-EBAF product does not allow us to discriminate if the peak of the anomaly corresponded with the early, cooler part of the month or the SEHW event later in the month.

3.7 Sensitivity to forcing perturbations

To further isolate the effects of anomalous meteorological conditions on ΔSWE , we run sensitivity tests by perturbing T_{air} , $SW^\downarrow$ forcings, and the model α parameterization. The sensitivity test model runs start on 1 March at midnight and end on 31 March. All model initial states, including CC, liquid water amount, SWE, and the starting α (except for the third experiment, which prescribes a fixed α) are set so that they are equivalent to conditions in the open and forest respectively on March 1.

The first experiment reduces T_{air} by a constant linear amount (from 2 °C to 8 °C) for each hourly forcing timestep. The second experiment reduces $SW^\downarrow$ using a multiplicative factor between 80 and 95% of the value used in previous sections. The third

experiment switches the albedo scheme from “varDecay” to SUMMA’s “conDecay” method and fixes the snow α at a constant value between 0.7 and 0.9 for the duration of the experiment, keeping all other forcings the same (Fig. 11a–c).

We find that reducing the daily T_{air} by 8°C (which is closer to climatological March T_{air} ; (Fig. 2)) still yields a 75% loss of SWE (Fig. 11a), which is nearly identical to reducing $SW^\downarrow$ to 80% of its present value (close to a $40\text{W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ reduction and the climatological average for March) in the open site (Fig. 11b). The forest site, however, is more sensitive to T_{air} than changing $SW^\downarrow$ or variations in α . Reducing T_{air} by 8°C , but keeping the α and $SW^\downarrow$ at their 2026 March values, yields a snowpack that loses only 25% of its starting mass by the end of March. An unphysical, constant albedo of 0.9 yields almost no SWE loss in the open site but still a 50% reduction in the forest site (Fig. 11c).

4 Discussion

4.1 Sublimation does not increase linearly with T_{air}

The relatively small contributions of H_s despite anomalously high T_{air} can be explained by considering “offline” test cases assuming a fixed 0°C melting snow surface. Ice or liquid water on the snow surface cannot exceed this thermodynamic limit.

There are two mechanisms to consider. The first limiting mechanism of sublimation during heat waves is the effect of surface layer stability. For this offline test, we use the “standard” stability correction implemented in SUMMA, given by $f(Ri) = (1 - 5 * Ri)^2$ (see Sec. S2).

First, the vapor pressure of ice or pooling 0°C liquid water cannot exceed 6.11 hPa (while noting that the vapor pressures of ice and liquid water are not exactly equal; Huang (2018)), meaning that the vapor pressure of near-surface air must be less than this amount for evapo-sublimation to occur. For a constant relative humidity (RH) of 20%, H_l decreases rather than increases as a function of T_{air} over a 0°C snow regardless of w_{spd} (Fig. 12b,d). T_{air} greater than $24\text{--}25^\circ\text{C}$ at 20% RH adds energy and mass to the snow via condensation/deposition. On the other hand, sublimation is permitted across the full range of RH values as T_{air} approaches 0°C . In reality, though, RH is not independent of T_{air} , and generally decreases as T_{air} rises during the daytime. RH values did reach these low levels for brief periods near noon, but were not sustained for long durations, explaining the relative lack of sublimation (less than 1% of the total snow mass loss during March in the open site, and 1.4% in the forest).

Some snow climate studies have shown increases in sublimation during mid-winter warm spells (Scaff et al., 2024), increases in nocturnal sublimation (Rudisill et al., 2026), and modest or no change (Sexstone et al., 2018) in sublimation as a function of warming. Observations also show higher sublimation rates occurring later in the snow season with more available radiative energy (Schwat et al., 2025). These findings are still consistent with the previous arguments, however, which are made for the specific case of increasing T_{air} over 0°C snow. Snow that climatologically shifts its mean surface temperature closer to a 0°C state may more frequently sublimate into the atmosphere, but discrete heat wave events may yield a decrease in sublimation if the snow is already near its vapor pressure limit. Furthermore, we caution that neither ice-free bare-soil evaporation nor transpiration is limited by these same mechanisms. For these reasons, we speculate that anomalous declines in streamflow runoff, relative to total precipitation, observed during warm-spring periods are likely associated with other evaporative processes rather than evapo-sublimation from snow.

The previous argument also assumes that Monin–Obukhov theory, which underpins turbulent exchange in nearly all land surface and climate models, is applicable (Foken, 2006). Complex terrain related turbulence generation mechanisms (Schwat et al., 2025),

advection of sensible heat from nearby snow-free patches or forest edges (Harder et al., 2017), or wind-pumping (Bartlett & Lehning, 2011) effects may provide additional atmospheric exchange with the snowpack that is not accounted for by models or the previous argument.

4.2 Limitations and caveats related to the influence of canopy

We only examined a limited case of vegetation canopy with a fixed LAI of 1.5, which corresponded well with CSSL observations (Fig. S5) and is representative of other forested regions of the Sierra Nevada (Van Gunst, 2012; Krogh et al., 2020). A full accounting of the geographic pattern of vegetation/heat wave interactions likely requires considering additional processes such as canopy gap effects (Lawler & Link, 2011), shading from adjacent stands, and the full range of canopy types and parameters that are also aspect- and slope-dependent (Broxton et al., 2015).

Regions where climatological T_{air} exceeds $-1\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}$ typically observe earlier melt-out in forested areas, relative to open regions, for reasons related to the balance of canopy shading and LW emission (Lundquist et al., 2013). Shading reduces rates of ablation, while interception reduces the peak amount of sub-canopy SWE. Related work has shown that streamflow from forested watersheds is more sensitive to climate change in the California Sierra Nevada given this temperature dependency (Cristea et al., 2014). Our findings also highlight the potential significance of atmospheric $SW^{\downarrow}$ anomalies on forest snow interactions, since, in this case, the sustained $SW^{\downarrow}$ anomaly amplified the shading effect by the tree canopy.

4.3 Sensitivity to antecedent conditions

The timescale over which anomalous ΔSWE is defined (e.g., daily or monthly) determines which mechanisms are most explanatory. For instance, CC of the snow is vital for understanding event-scale ablation rates during ROS (Katz et al., 2023). While the February wet-SEHW and rain-on-snow event did reduce the initial CC below average, lower the surface α , and saturate the snow with liquid water, the initial cold content of the snow was not a large factor in explaining the anomalous monthly rate of ablation. For perspective, the initial CC was less than $-1\text{ MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ (compared to an average March value of $\approx -3\text{ MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) whereas the cumulative energy directed towards melt during March was over $100\text{ MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$, meaning that the initial CC represented less than 1% of the energy directed towards ablation and was easily overcome. For some additional perspective, Jennings et al. (2018) also found that CC rarely exceeds $-10\text{ MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ in cold, continental, alpine snowpacks. Both Jennings et al. (2018) and Seligman et al. (2014) also noted the timescale dependency of the relationship between CC and rate of ablation.

However, the rate of overnight ΔCC did impact the daily rates of Melt and SWE loss, since CC must be overcome the following day before melting can begin (Fig. 5f) and represents as much as one-third of the following day's rate of melt. Additional analysis shows that ΔCC is limited to a thin layer of snow near the surface of the snowpack following refreezing, and that liquid water persists below (Fig. S4). The overnight development of CC is driven by LW_{net} and H_l in some limited cases, but is limited by the refreezing of the liquid overnight, which adds energy back to the snowpack (Fig. 5e).

Additional sensitivity tests that prescribed various snow initial conditions on 1 March found that the accumulated amount of melt was largely insensitive to initial liquid water or CC. Snow still completely ablates by the end of March when all the initial liquid water is removed from the snowpack, but does ablate one to two days later than the baseline simulation (Fig. S8). However, increasing the amount of antecedent SWE yielded snowpacks that were able to retain more liquid water, meaning that ΔSWE was miti-

gated by as much as 50 mm (Fig. S9). This effect may explain some of the behavior of the higher elevation, Independence Lake SNOTEL (Fig. 4a) that had the highest amount of remaining SWE at the end of March. These tests highlight that snow ablation is fundamentally governed by energy inputs into the snowpack, above all else.

Declining snow α and low antecedent α arose as a dominant control on the rate of snow ablation (Fig. 11c). The snow-temperature dependent parameterization in SUMMA performed reasonably compared to the available observations (Fig. S7). In this parameterization, snow α decays as a function of the time since last snowfall and the temperature of the topmost snow layer. The latter is meant to account for the effects of vapor diffusion growth of snow grains (Colbeck, 1982). An additional exponent term amplifies α decline when snow is close to 0 °C, and is meant to account for “slush” on the snow surface, which increases the snow’s effective grain size (Warren, 1982). This work underscores the importance of α monitoring efforts (Bair et al., 2021; Painter et al., 2016) as well as snow α parameterization evaluations (Abolafia-Rosenzweig et al., 2022).

4.4 Future directions and connections to climate change

In addition to the observed increases in SEHW conditions during the historical record, the frequency of heat wave events is expected to increase with climate change (Seneviratne et al., 2023). The paradox raised at the beginning of this study — why are SEHW events so effective at ablating snow? — may have multiple answers, and the events described by Rhoades et al. (2026) likely arise from a variety of mechanisms that are not represented by the March 2026 event. In their work, a minimum of 3 days with above-freezing and 6 °C above-average T_{air} was used to classify SEHW events. We find that both the late February ROS event and the late March dry and warm period qualify as SEHW events following those criteria. This highlights the variety of mechanisms that may lead to anomalous snow ablation during periods of anomalously warm T_{air} . A complete accounting of the energy balance mechanisms during the wet-SEHW event in February is beyond the current scope, but merits investigation. Some lines of reasoning suggest that temperature index methods are effective because $LW^{\downarrow}$ emission comes from the lowest several hundred meters of the atmosphere, whose temperature T_{air} reasonably approximates (Ohmura, 2001). This work does not necessarily support that conclusion, since $LW^{\downarrow}$ was above average, but not exceptional, compared to SW terms of the snow energy balance.

Observational evidence points towards increasing trends in $SW^{\downarrow}$ (so-called surface “brightening” trends) in the WUS and other locations (Long et al., 2009; McKinnon & Simpson, 2025). The incidence of sustained anomalies in clear-sky conditions (such as those observed in March 2026) in the historical record and from climate projections merits additional investigation. This work underscores the need to consider potential changes in the full energy balance of the snowpack, in addition to T_{air} , for understanding the ramifications of changing climate on snow.

Given that heatwaves may increase in the future, should we expect more intense rates of snowmelt? Given the strong dependency on SW_{net} , snowmelt rates may actually decline in a future even warmer world as snow ablates earlier in the year when the sun is weaker (Musselman et al., 2017). For some perspective, the maximum rates of ablation during March 2026 were on the order of -25 mm/day. Water year 2023, however, was an above-average snowfall year and snow persisted well into July at CSSL — rates of snow ablation exceeded -70 mm/day during that time, since the sun was close to peak strength.

5 Conclusions

It is “virtually certain” that climate change has already driven shifts towards earlier heat waves and their increased intensity and frequency (Seneviratne et al., 2023), and

along with them snow-eater heat wave (SEHW) conditions (Rhoades et al., 2026). These trends are expected to continue under business-as-usual emission scenarios. From the perspective of peak SWE, the probability of a year like 2026 may increase markedly by the end-of-century (Marshall et al., 2026). This underscores the need to adapt water and ecosystem management to provide resiliency to such events, and to understand the drivers of anomalous SWE.

We investigated the anomalously warm March 2026 in the California Sierra Nevada. Monthly average T_{air} was $3\text{-}\sigma$ above average based on high-quality records, exceeding the previous record set during the 1934 Dust Bowl. The second half of March met the SEHW criteria described by Rhoades et al. (2026). Correspondingly, snow ablated at rapid, unprecedented rates for 9 out of 12 SNOTEL stations in the study region. Not only was March 2026 anomalously warm, but it was the sunniest March ($SW^{\downarrow} +42 \text{ W}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$ above average) of the CERES satellite record (2000 to present), driven by a near-complete lack of low or mid-level clouds.

The higher-than-average $SW^{\downarrow}$ combined with well-below-average snow α meant that SW_{net} was the predominant ablation forcing in both open and forested sites. The nighttime energy balance was not particularly anomalous compared to past March periods in the open site — it was the daytime flux of energy that drove the extreme rate of ablation. Vegetation canopy shielded the sub-canopy snow from the sun and wind, but also enhanced $LW^{\downarrow}$ under the canopy. In this way the sub-canopy snow was more directly sensitive to warm T_{air} , but less sensitive to the anomalous sunshine. Combined, the shading effect was stronger, meaning that the snow ablated at a lower rate under canopy relative to the open site.

We conclude that future analyses should focus on the co-variation of extreme heat and the dynamics that lead to the prolonged cloud-free conditions that contributed to the anomalous downwelling radiation, as well as antecedent snow albedo and albedo darkening processes, in order to forecast and quantify the effects of SEHW events on snow ablation.

Open Research Section

ERA5 atmospheric data and near-surface meteorological forcings for SUMMA were downloaded from the Copernicus data store ECMWF (2023). Geopotential height anomalies and standard deviations were precomputed and provided from the supplemental material of Lee et al. (2023). Snow Property Inversion from Remote Sensing (SPIReS) near-real-time data are publicly available from the National Snow and Ice Data Center Snow Today page. The SUMMA model v3.3.0 is publicly available on GitHub (M. Clark et al., 2024). Data from the Central Sierra Snow Laboratory are accessible online and access is described in Schwartz et al. (2026). USHCN data is available from <https://www.ncei.noaa.gov/pub/data/ushcn/v2.5/>. SNOTEL data are publicly available online from <https://www.nrcs.usda.gov/>. CERES-EBAF data are available online from <https://ceres.larc.nasa.gov/data/>. Model outputs and configuration files from this study are available on Zenodo (<https://zenodo.org/records/22883860>)

Conflicts of interest

The authors declare there are no conflicts of interest for this manuscript.

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 696 tal US” (HyperFACETS) project (DE-SC0016605).

697 Claude-Code was used to assist in the generation of plotting scripts and grammar/consistency
 698 checks for the manuscript document.

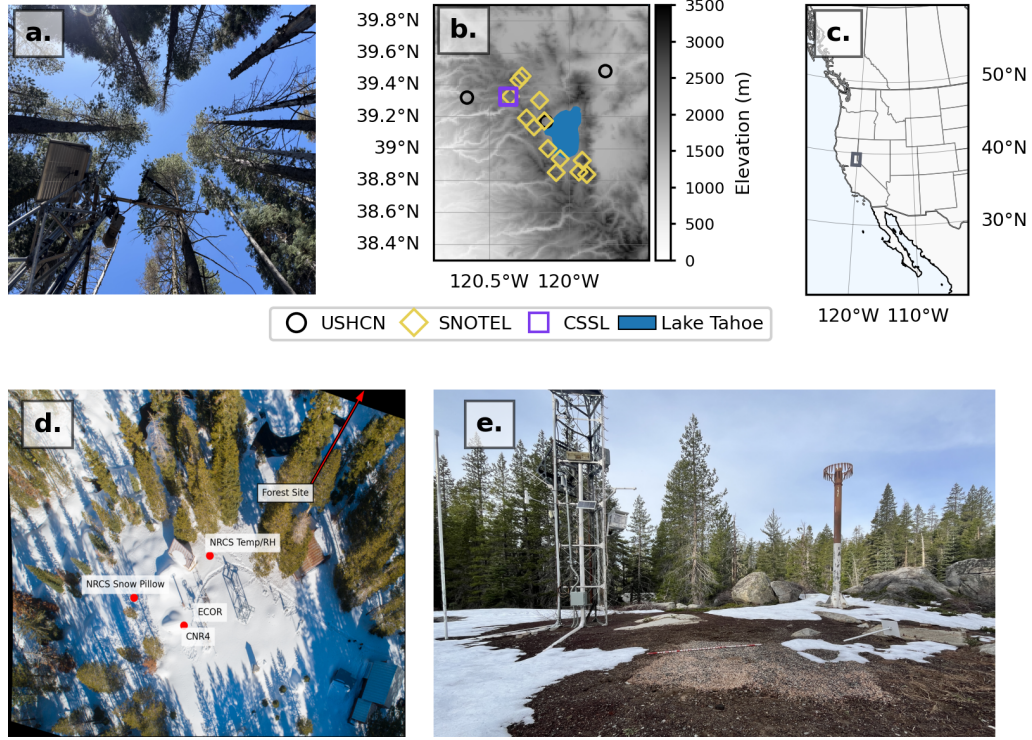


Figure 1. The California Sierra Nevada study region. (a) An up-looking view from the forest site at CSSL. (b) Terrain elevation of the greater CSSL/Lake Tahoe region. Open diamonds depict the location of NRCS SNOTEL sites, open circles show the location of the four USHCN stations in the region, and the open purple square shows the location of CSSL. (c) Shows the location of the study area in the context of the WUS, with the boundary of (b) outlined by an open rectangle. (d) Shows an overview aerial image of CSSL open site, with key instruments labeled, including the ECOR (eddy covariance). The forest study site is just outside of the frame to the top right. (e) Depicts the NRCS snow pillow (and precipitation bucket in the background) at CSSL on March 30, 2026.

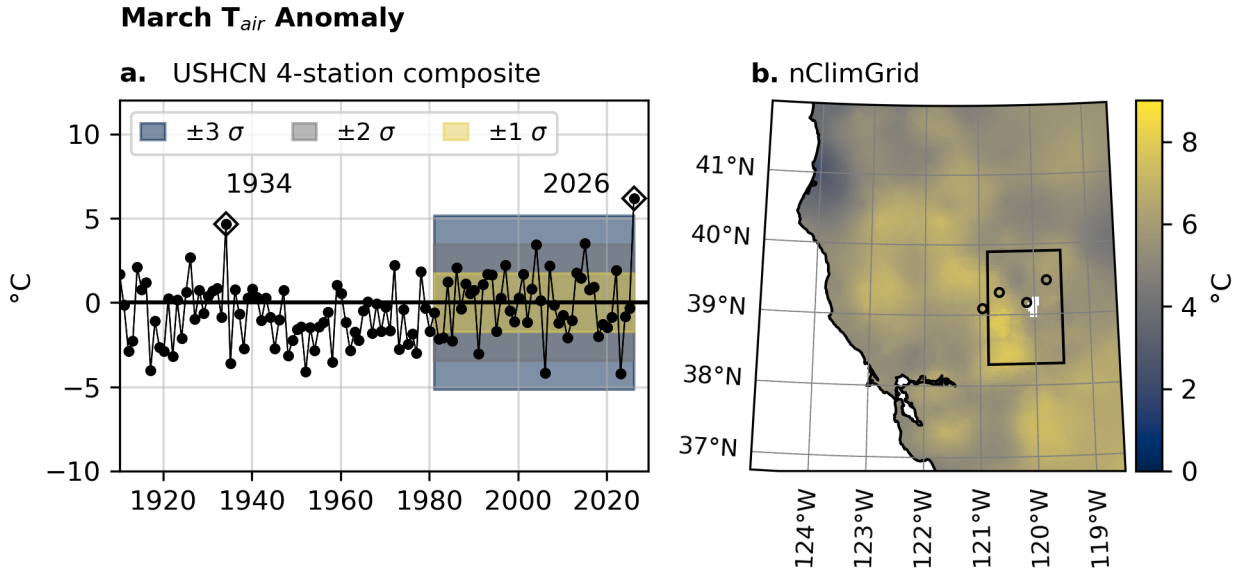


Figure 2. (a) Composite T_{air} anomalies from the four HCNv2 dataset stations in the central California Sierra Nevada region study area for the month of March, from 1910 to 2026. Deviations and standard deviations with respect to the 1981–2010 mean T_{air} are depicted using shading. (b) The same, but for a map-view of the T_{air} anomaly of the gridded nClimGrid product. The box depicts the map boundary from (Fig. 1b) and open circles depict USHCN station locations.

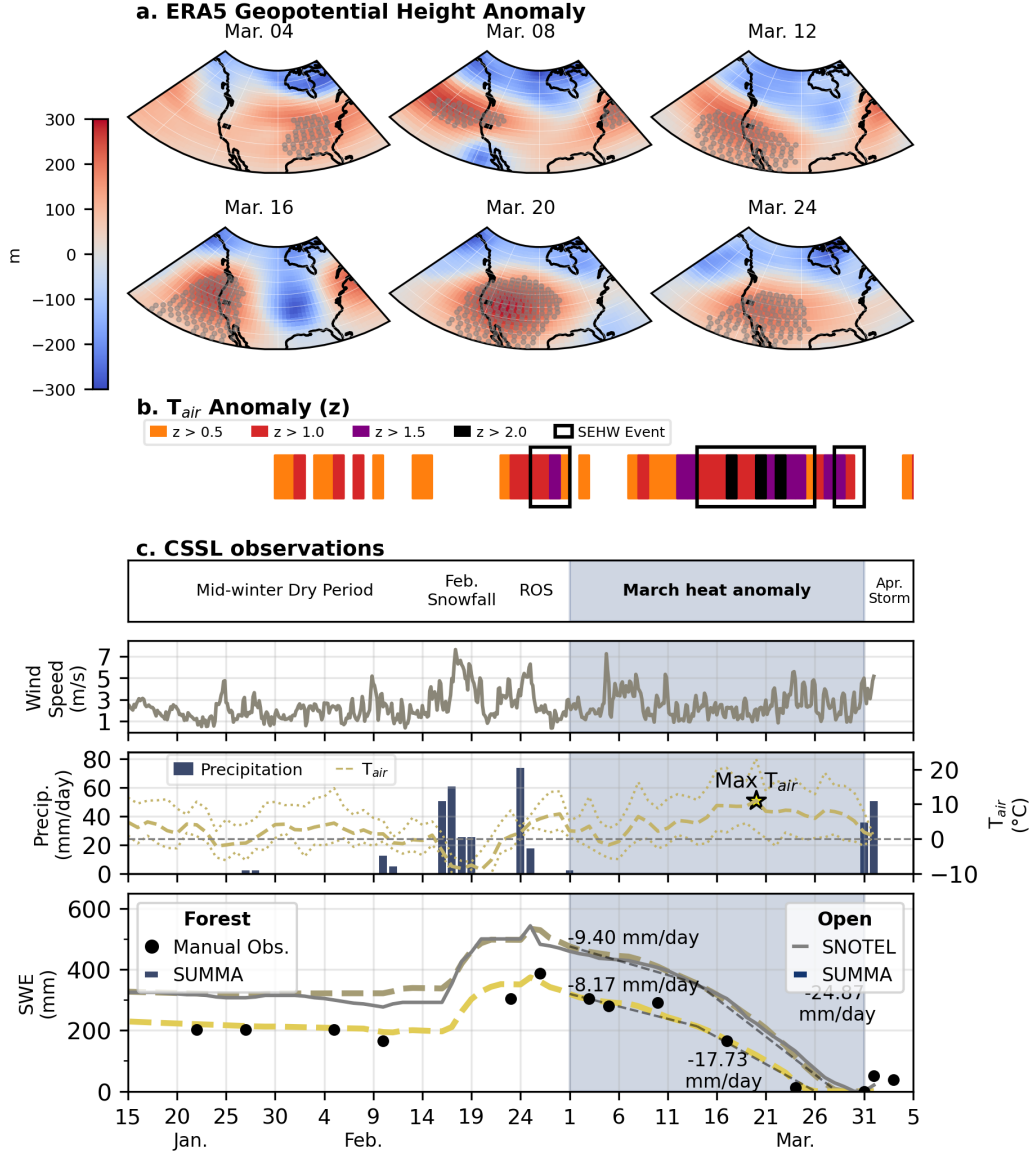


Figure 3. (a) The 500 hPa geopotential height anomaly during March 2026 heat wave from ERA5 across the WUS for six individual days. The study region is outlined using an overlain black rectangle. Gray stippling indicates regions with 500 hPa geopotential height anomalies greater than 2σ above the March mean. (b) depicts two meter T_{air} anomaly z-scores from the Tahoe City USHCN station. Periods meeting the Rhoades et al. (2026) SEHW criteria are outlined with a black box. (c) shows the time series of meteorological and snow conditions at CSSL, with different synoptic conditions highlighted by background shading (top-panel). Wind speed, precipitation, and two-meter T_{air} are depicted (daily average, daily minimum, and daily maximum). The bottom panel depicts modeled (SUMMA) and observed SWE at the open and forest sites. Average rates of SWE loss are listed in the figure text with dashed lines superimposed on the SWE curves.

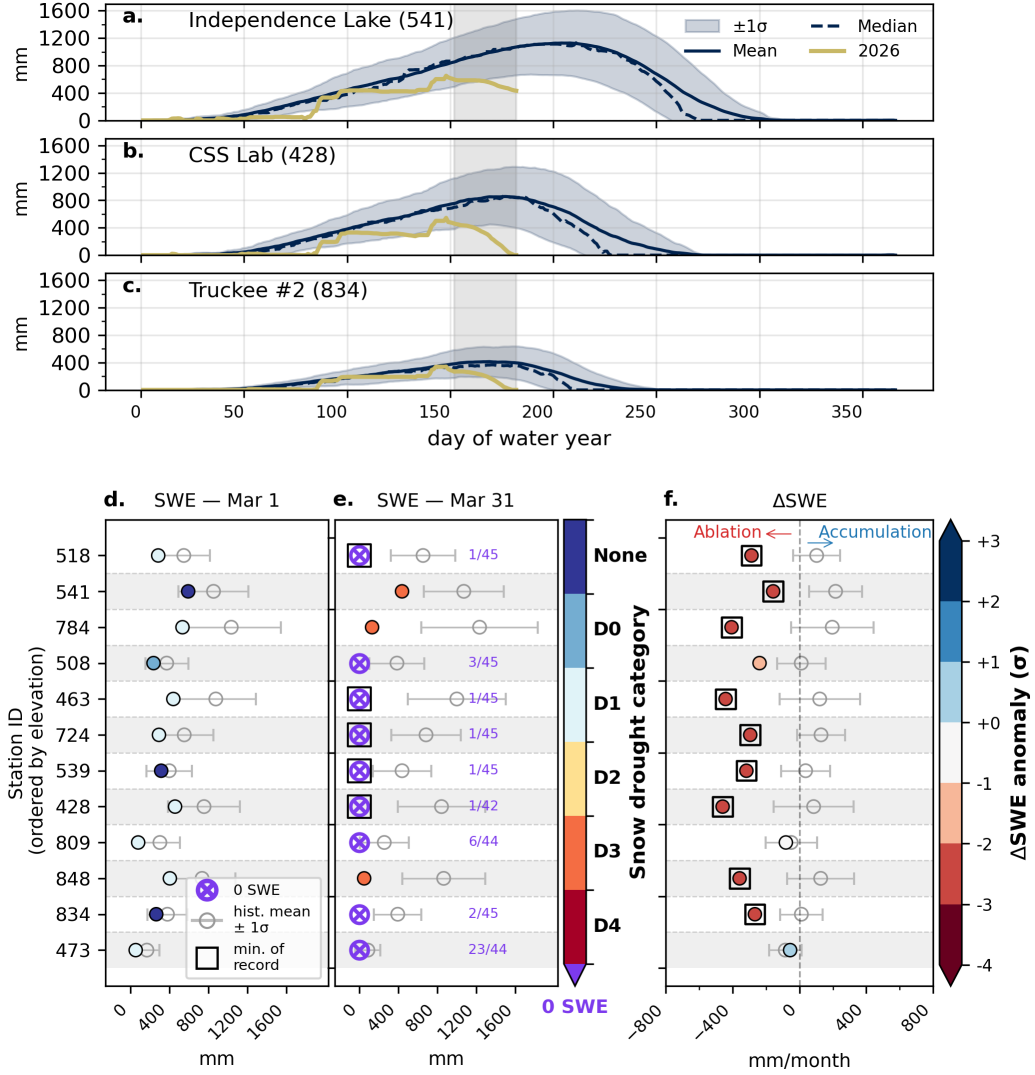


Figure 4. (a–c) Timeseries of SWE at three SNOTEL stations in the study region. The mean, median (dashed line), $1\text{-}\sigma$ (shaded region) and water year 2026 values are depicted. (d) SWE values on March 1st for the 12 SNOTEL sites in the study domain, labeled by their three-digit station code. (e) The same as (d), but for SWE on March 31. Color values depict the Hatchett et al. (2022) snow drought category. A 0 mm of SWE value is depicted by a purple circle marker. The purple text lists the number of 0 mm SWE occurrences observed on that date relative to the period of record for that site. (f) The SWE change between Mar 31 and Mar 1 (ΔSWE) compared with the historical record. Color values depict the deviation from the mean in units of σ . Square markers bounding symbols indicate that the SWE or ΔSWE is the record minimum for the period of record.

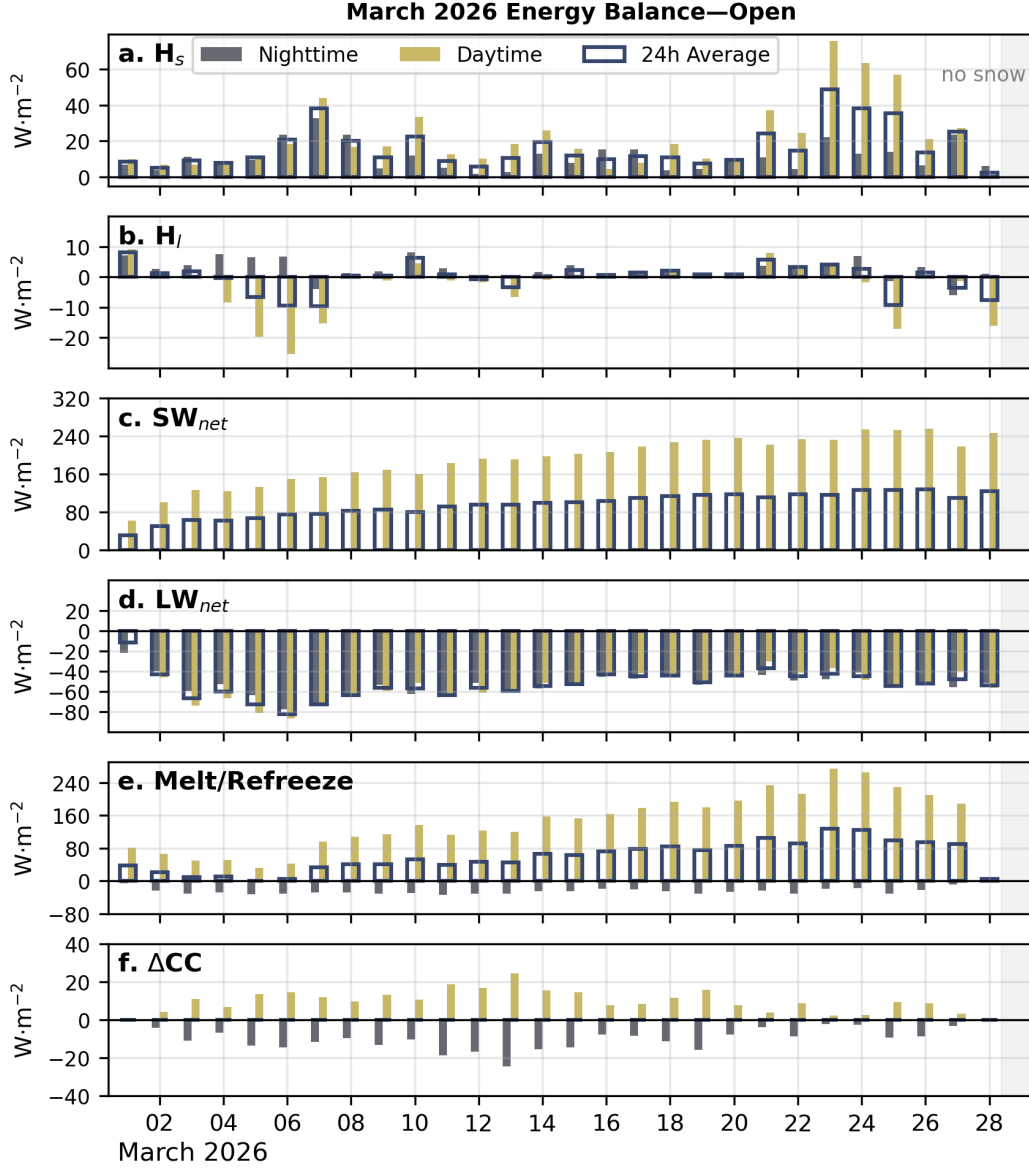


Figure 5. Daily average energy flux components including (a) H_s , (b) H_l , (c) SW_{net} , (d) LW_{net} , (e) snowpack Melt/Refreeze and (f) change in CC (ΔCC) during the March 2026 heat wave at the open site. Each day has three bars: the right-most yellow bar depicts the daytime flux, the left-most gray bar depicts the nighttime flux, and the outline spanning both bars depicts the 24-hour average flux. Note that the y-scales are not equivalent across all of the figures.

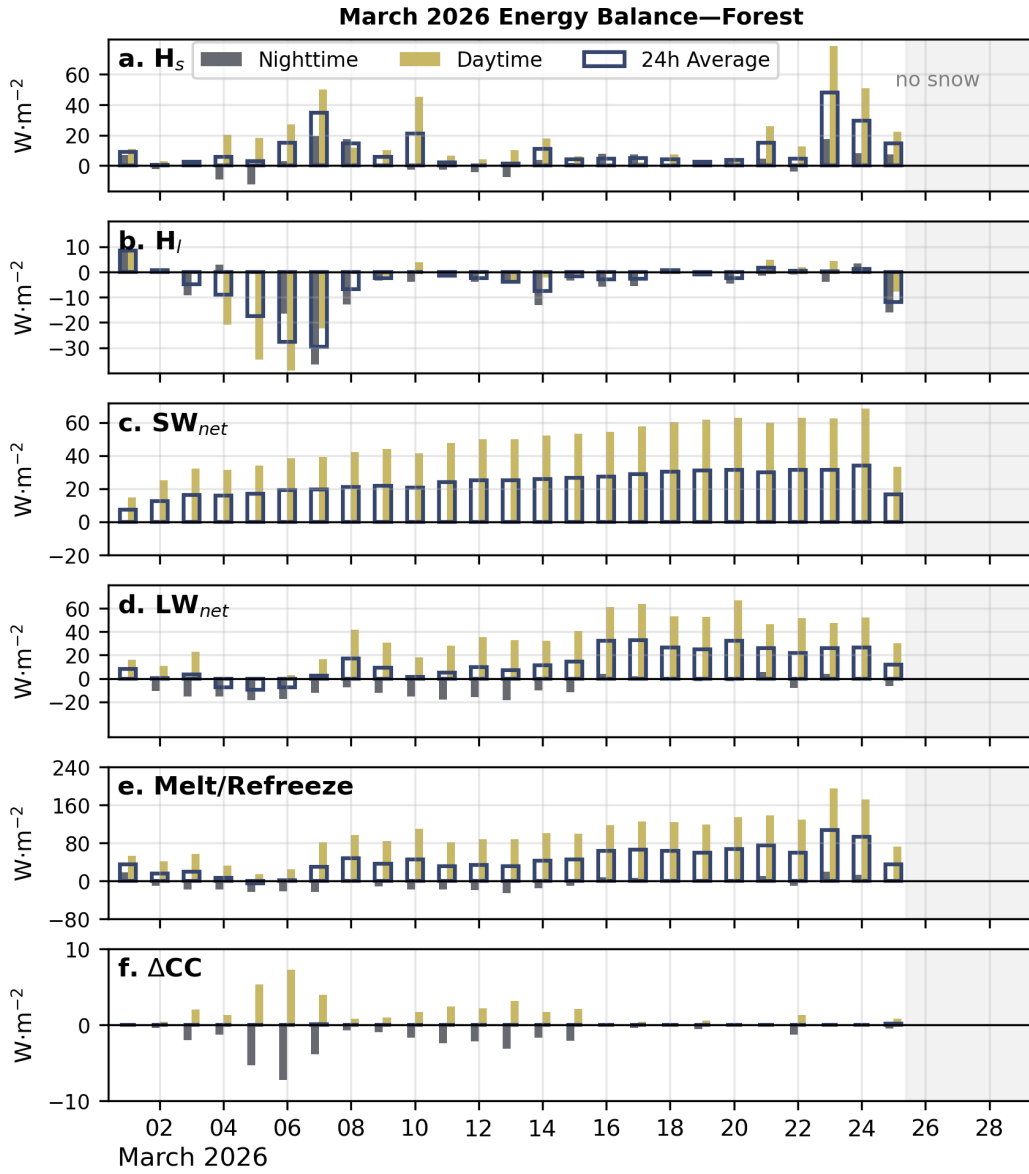


Figure 6. The same as Fig. 5 but for the forest site. Note that the y-axis limits and ticks are not the same as Fig. 5.

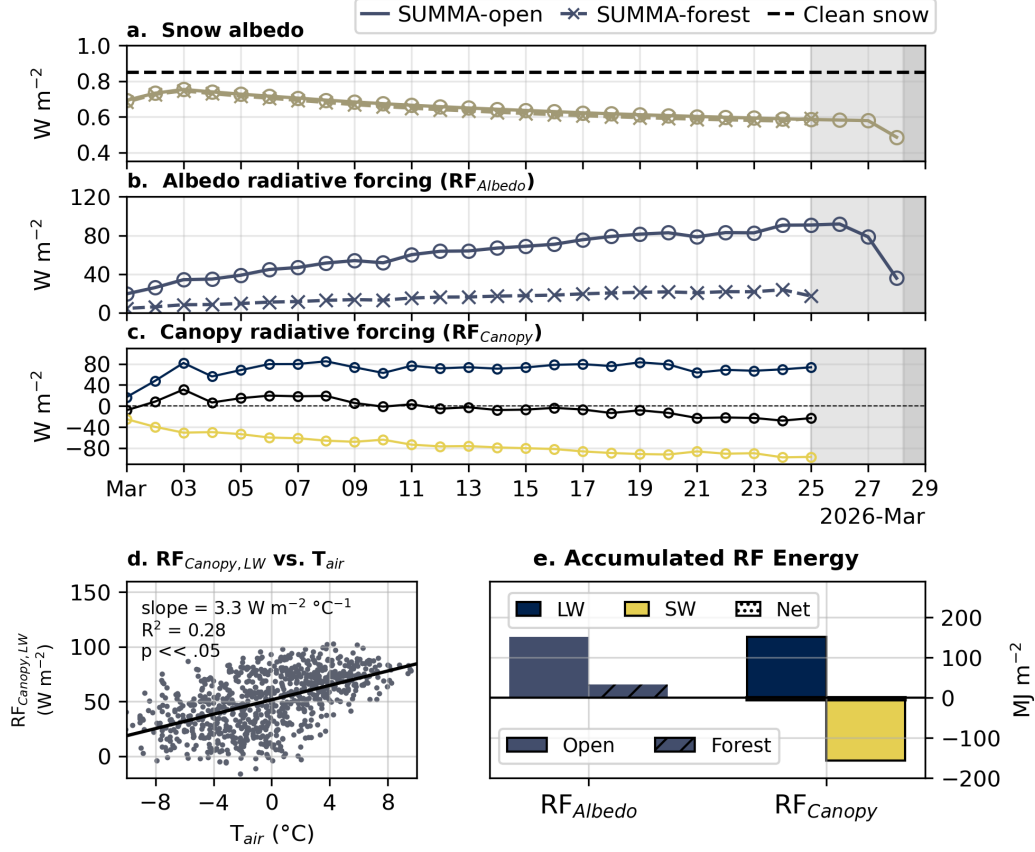


Figure 7. Timeseries of (a) α , (b) RF_{albedo} , (c) RF_{canopy} for March 2026. The LW, SW, and net (LW + SW) components are all depicted in (c). (e) Depicts the relationship between daily-average T_{air} and the LW component of RF_{canopy} for all Marches in the SUMMA historical record (2000–2026). (f) Depicts accumulated energy terms during the snow-covered duration of March. The stippled net RF_{canopy} is negative but too small to resolve on the plot. The line colors in (c) correspond with the legend in (e).

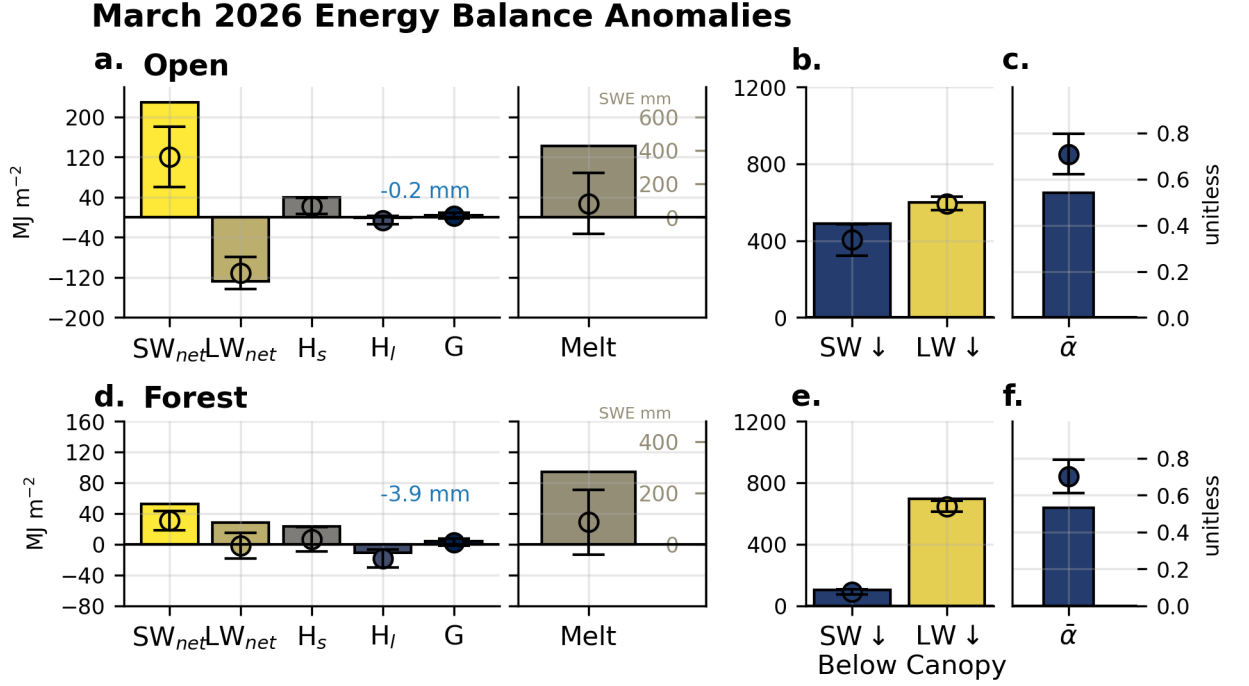


Figure 8. Accumulated energy flux components (SW_{net} , LW_{net} , H_s , H_l , G), Melt, downwelling radiation terms, ($SW^{\downarrow}$, $LW^{\downarrow}$), and weighted snow $\bar{\alpha}$ for the open (a–c) and forest (d–f) sites for the duration of March 2026, restricted to times when SWE is present. Open circles and whiskers show the average and 1- σ from the March SUMMA historical period (2000–2026). Equivalent units of mm of melt are displayed in red text on the right-hand side of the Melt panels (a and d). The under-canopy $SW^{\downarrow}$ and $LW^{\downarrow}$ are depicted in panel (e).

March 2026 Energy Balance Diel Cycle and Anomaly

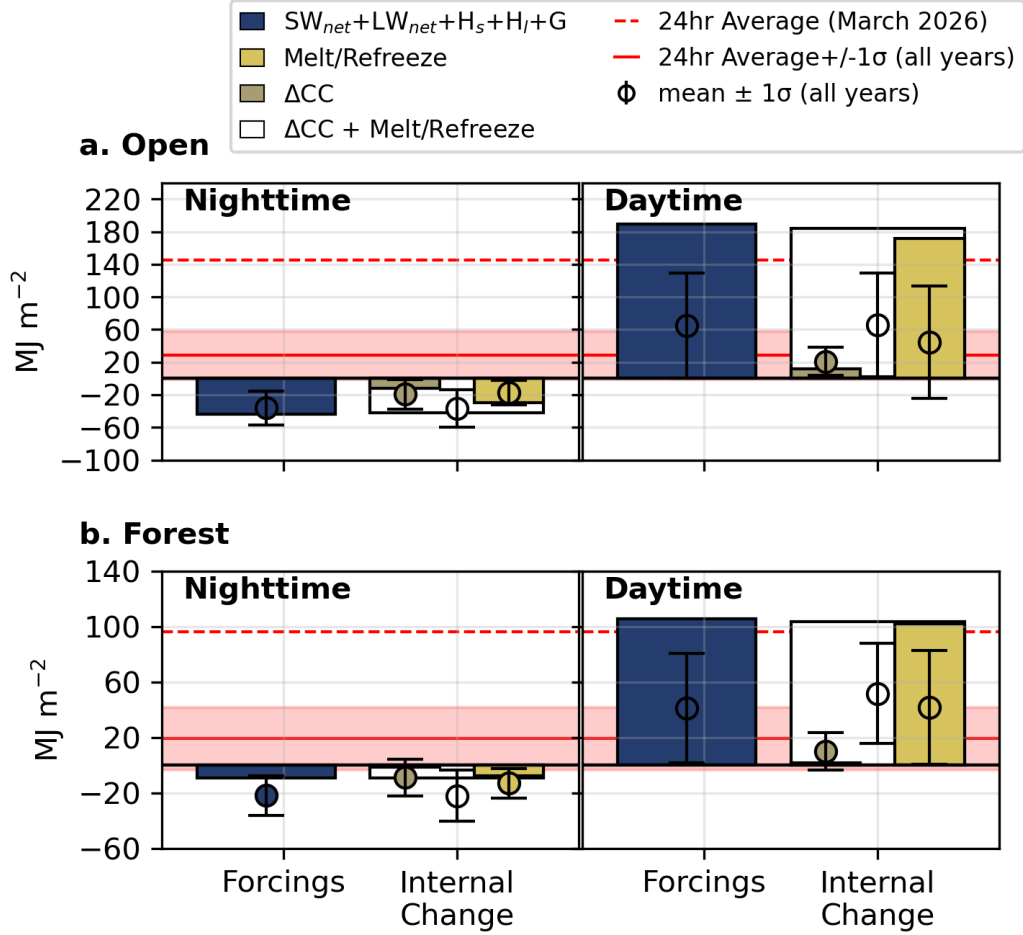


Figure 9. Similar to Fig. 8, but for daytime, nighttime, and 24-hour sums of accumulated energy balance components in the (a) Open and (b) Forest sites. Forcings include net-radiative and turbulent flux terms at top and bottom boundaries of the snowpack. Internal Change terms are the accumulated ΔCC and melt (positive) and refreezing (negative) energy. ΔCC and Melt/Refreeze are separated into individual terms for visualization purposes.

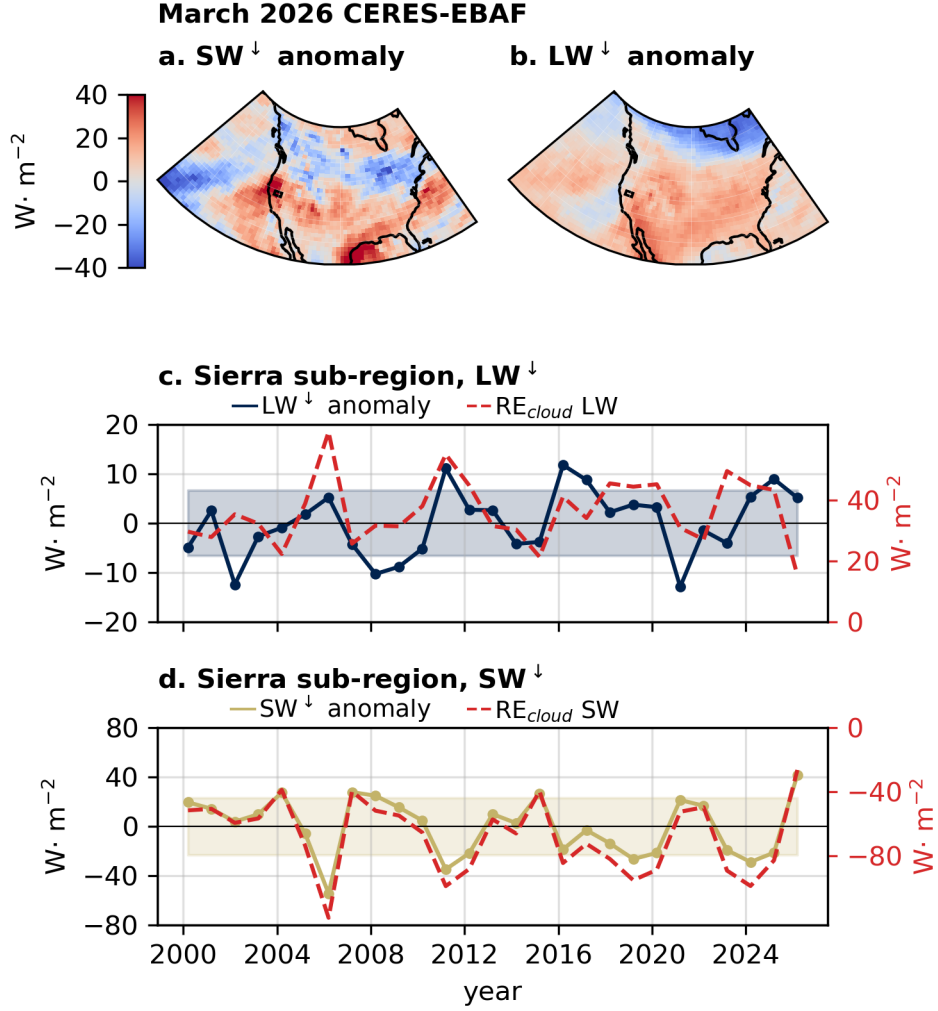


Figure 10. March $SW^\downarrow$ (a) and $LW^\downarrow$ (b) anomalies (relative to the March 2000 to present record) from the CERES-EBAF $1^\circ \times 1^\circ$ resolution product. (c) and (d) depict the timeseries of anomalies from the grid cell encompassing the central Sierra Nevada study region. RE_{cloud} amount is depicted with a twin y-axis, with units displayed on the right-hand side in red text. The shaded region in each plot depicts $1-\sigma$ of the anomaly.

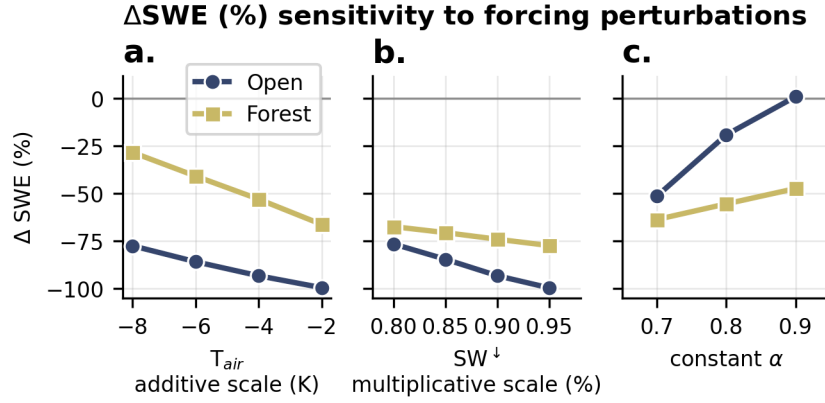


Figure 11. Sensitivity of ΔSWE (%) from March 1 to March 31 to perturbations to (a) T_{air} and (b) $SW^{\downarrow}$ forcings for open and forest sites. (c) shows the effect of prescribing a constant broadband snow α .

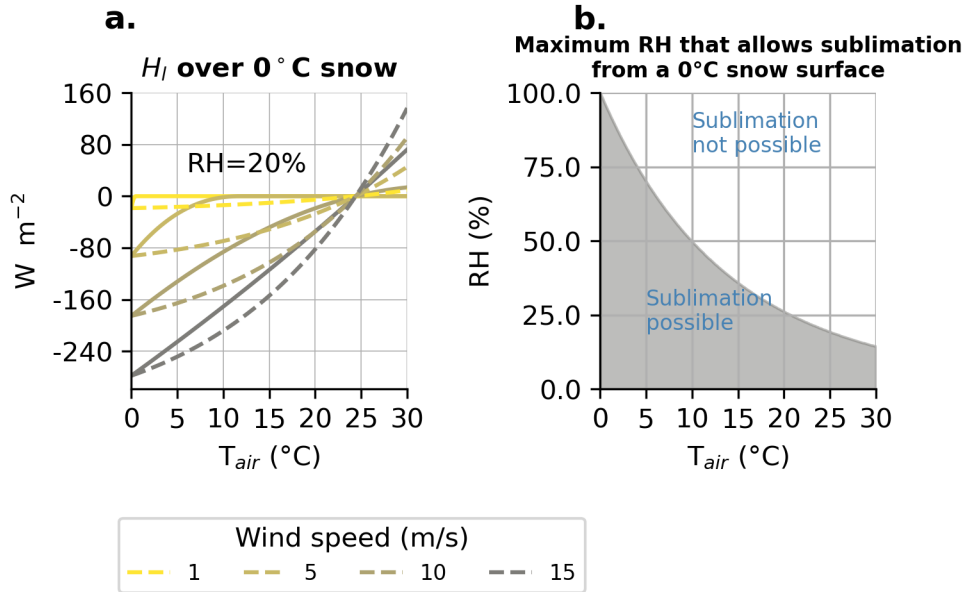


Figure 12. (a) Idealized latent heat fluxes (H_l) into a melting snowpack as a function of T_{air} for four wind speeds (1, 5, 10, and 15 m s^{-1}) at a 12 m height for open-conditions and a snow surface roughness of $z_0=0.002$ m. Dashed lines show flux assuming a neutral surface layer; solid lines show the same formulation with a stability correction applied. Contours depict the fraction of the maximum H_s for that wind speed value. (b) The thermodynamic limitation of sublimation as a function of T_{air} , depicting the maximum RH that permits sublimation from a 0 °C snow-pack.

Table 2. Open and forest-site energy balance components ($\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) and ΔCC ($\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$) for March 2026 compared against the historical climatology (mean and standard deviation, σ). The SWE equivalent in mm is given in parentheses for H_l and Melt

		SW_{net}	LW_{net}	H_s	H_l	G	Melt	ΔCC
Open	2026	229.3	-127.5	39.7	-0.7 (-0.2)	4.3	142.1 (425.6)	0.0
	Mean	120.3	-111.3	22.7	-5.8 (-2.1)	3.3	27.6 (82.6)	1.8
	σ	61.3	32.8	16.0	8.6 (3.0)	5.8	61.9 (185.4)	4.8
Forest	2026	52.1	28.1	22.9	-11.0 (-3.9)	4.0	94.3 (282.4)	0.0
	Mean	31.0	-1.6	6.3	-18.8 (-6.6)	2.4	28.8 (86.2)	1.0
	σ	12.7	17.0	16.0	11.9 (4.2)	4.6	42.8 (128.2)	2.3

Table 3. Day/nighttime decomposition of forcings ($\text{SW}_{net}+\text{LW}_{net}+H_s+H_l+G$), Melt/Refreeze, and ΔCC , in $\text{MJ}\cdot\text{m}^{-2}$, for March 2026 compared against the historical climatology (mean and standard deviation, σ) of March conditions.

		Forcings		Melt/Refreeze		ΔCC	
		Day	Night	Day	Night	Day	Night
Open	2026	189.2	-44.1	172.1	-29.9	11.9	-11.9
	Mean	64.7	-36.2	44.7	-17.4	21.0	-19.5
	σ	65.5	21.0	69.9	15.6	17.5	18.7
Forest	2026	105.4	-9.2	101.9	-7.5	1.7	-1.7
	Mean	41.1	-21.9	41.8	-13.1	9.9	-9.0
	σ	40.4	14.5	41.9	10.7	13.8	13.4

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